

there are some exceptions, most bacterial genomes have between 1 and 6 million base pairs (Mb); for example, the genome of *E. coli* has 4.6 Mb. Genomes of archaea are mostly within the size range of bacterial genomes. (Keep in mind, however, that many fewer archaeal genomes have been completely sequenced, so this picture may change.) Eukaryotic genomes tend to be larger: The genome of the single-celled yeast *Saccharomyces cerevisiae* (a fungus) has about 12 Mb, while most animals and plants, which are multicellular, have genomes of at least 100 Mb. There are 165 Mb in the fruit fly genome, while humans have 3,000 Mb, about 500 to 3,000 times as many as a typical bacterium.

Aside from this general difference between prokaryotes and eukaryotes, a comparison of genome sizes among eukaryotes fails to reveal any systematic relationship between genome size and the organism's phenotype. For instance, the range among plants is enormous: The genome of *Paris japonica*, the Japanese canopy plant, contains 149 billion base pairs (149,000 Mb), while that of another plant, *Utricularia gibba*, a bladderwort, contains only 82 Mb. Even more striking, there is a single-celled amoeba, *Polychaos dubium*, whose genome size has been estimated at 670 billion base pairs (670,000 Mb). (This genome has not yet been sequenced.) On a finer scale, comparing two insect species, the cricket (*Anabrus simplex*) genome turns out to have 11 times as many base pairs as the fruit fly (*Drosophila melanogaster*) genome. There is a wide range of genome sizes within the groups of protists, insects, amphibians, and plants and less of a range within mammals and reptiles.

Number of Genes

The number of genes also varies between prokaryotes and eukaryotes: Bacteria and archaea, in general, have fewer genes than eukaryotes. Free-living bacteria and archaea have from 1,500 to 7,500 genes, while the number of genes in eukaryotes ranges from about 5,000 for unicellular fungi (yeasts) to at least 40,000 for some multicellular eukaryotes.

Within the eukaryotes, the number of genes in a species is often lower than expected from considering simply the size of its genome. Looking at Table 21.1, you can see that the genome of the nematode *C. elegans* is 100 Mb in size and contains roughly 20,100 genes. In comparison, the genome of *Drosophila melanogaster* is much bigger (165 Mb) but has only about two-thirds the number of genes—14,000 genes.

Considering an example closer to home, we noted that the human genome contains 3,000 Mb, well over ten times the size of either the *D. melanogaster* or *C. elegans* genome. At the outset of the Human Genome Project, biologists expected somewhere between 50,000 and 100,000 genes to be identified in the completed sequence, based on the number of known human proteins. As the project progressed, the

estimate was revised downward several times. There is still debate about the number, but it is much lower, probably around 21,300. This estimate, similar to the number of genes in the nematode *C. elegans*, surprised biologists, who had been expecting many more human genes.

What genetic attributes allow humans (and other vertebrates) to get by with no more genes than nematodes? An important factor is that vertebrate genomes “get more bang for the buck” from their coding sequences because of extensive alternative splicing of RNA transcripts. Recall that this process generates more than one polypeptide from a single gene (see Figure 18.14). A typical human gene contains about ten exons, and an estimated 90% or more of these multi-exon genes are spliced in at least two different ways. Some genes are expressed in hundreds of alternatively spliced forms, others in just two. Scientists have not yet catalogued all of the different forms, but it is clear that the number of different proteins encoded in the human genome far exceeds the proposed number of genes.

Additional polypeptide diversity could result from post-translational modifications such as cleavage or the addition of carbohydrate groups in different cell types or at different developmental stages. Finally, the discovery of miRNAs and other RNAs that play regulatory roles has added a new variable to the mix (see Concept 18.3). Some scientists think that this added level of regulation of some genes, when present, may contribute to greater organismal complexity.

Gene Density and Noncoding DNA

We can take both genome size and number of genes into account by comparing gene density in different species. In other words, we can ask how many genes are in a given length of DNA. When we compare the genomes of bacteria, archaea, and eukaryotes, we see that eukaryotes generally have larger genomes but fewer genes in a given number of base pairs. Humans have hundreds or thousands of times as many base pairs in their genome as most bacteria, as we already noted, but only 5 to 15 times as many genes; thus, gene density is lower in humans (see Table 21.1). Even unicellular eukaryotes, such as yeasts, have fewer genes per million base pairs than bacteria and archaea. Among the genomes that have been sequenced completely, humans and other mammals have the lowest gene density.

In all bacterial genomes studied so far, most of the DNA consists of genes for protein, tRNA, or rRNA; the small amount remaining consists mainly of nontranscribed regulatory sequences, such as promoters. The sequence of nucleotides along a bacterial protein-coding gene is not interrupted by noncoding sequences (introns). In eukaryotic genomes, by contrast, most of the DNA neither encodes protein nor is transcribed into RNA molecules of known